The SAGE Handbook of

Qualitative Data Analysis

– OFFPRINT –

Edited by
Uwe Flick

Contents

List of Tables and Figures xi
About the Editor xii
Notes on Contributors xiii
Acknowledgements xxiv

PART I: MAPPING THE FIELD 1

1 Mapping the Field 3
Uwe Flick

PART II: CONCEPTS, CONTEXTS, BASICS 19

2 Notes Toward a Theory of Qualitative Data Analysis 21
Joseph A. Maxwell and Margaret Chmiel

3 Analytic Inspiration in Ethnographic Fieldwork 35
Jaber F. Gubrium and James A. Holstein

4 Sampling Strategies in Qualitative Research 49
Tim Rapley

5 Transcription as a Crucial Step of Data Analysis 64
Sabine Kowal and Daniel C. O'Connell

6 Collaborative Analysis of Qualitative Data 79
Flora Cornish, Alex Gillespie and Tania Zittoun

7 Qualitative Comparative Practices: Dimensions, Cases and Strategies 94
Monika Palmberger and Andre Gingrich

8 Reflexivity and the Practice of Qualitative Research 109
Tim May and Beth Perry

9 Induction, Deduction, Abduction 123
Jo Reichertz

10 Interpretation and Analysis 136
Carla Willig

30

Video Analysis and Videography

Hubert Knoblauch, René Tuma and Bernt Schnettler

THE OMNIPRESENCE OF VIDEO IN EVERYDAY LIFE AND ITS APPLICATION TO QUALITATIVE RESEARCH

One of the major cultural changes with long-lasting effects on our way of life that can be witnessed in recent years is, indisputably, the *massive visualization* of our culture. Still and moving images are literally pervading our everyday and our professional life worlds; they are increasingly employed to operate in much of our communicative exchange and our knowledge production. They have invaded educational processes, and are even reshaping our self-representation. While visual studies have been focusing mainly on the role of 'images' (see Banks, Chapter 27, this volume) the cultural dynamics of video are still widely neglected. Video is a technology that allows the recording, storage and repeated viewing of visual and acoustic data. Developed on the basis of previous recording technologies including film (see Mikos, Chapter 28, this volume) and audiotapes, it was particularly the combination of recording and replaying, as provided by the camcorder, and its *digitalization*, that opened up video technologies to a broad range of applications. Starting as a medium for 'time shifting' television (Zielinski, 2010 [1986]), the video has been combined with CCTV cameras for surveillance, and it has been introduced into teaching, occupational training and several other contexts, creating new fields of art, entertainment (Greenberg, 2008) and political communication.

Aside from its use in various professional fields, such as medicine, the arts or policing, video has been used in the social sciences for quite some time. In various disciplines, including sociology, anthropology, education and sports studies, various approaches to 'video analysis' have cropped up. Several methods for analysing video have been developed recently, some of which include the analysis of moving images from fields such as entertainment, television or arts.

In order to understand the concept of video analysis presented here, two types of

methodological approaches have to be distinguished: 'standardized' versus 'interpretive' video analysis. *Standardized* video analysis is common in many research areas. In numerous fields, we find a strong tendency to sort, even automatize, data analysis (Mittenecker, 1987; Koch and Zumbach, 2002). In these approaches, the analytical procedure consists of the *coding* of video segments according to a pre-established coding scheme deduced from (more or less explicit) theoretical assumptions (see Schreier, Chapter 12, this volume). As a consequence, stretches of video-recorded interactions that vary in length from tens of seconds to several minutes are subsumed under prefixed categories, for example as 'supportive' or 'non-supportive', aggressive' or 'non-aggressive behaviour' or by counting speaker turns (Seidel, 2005). Often, the reasons for subsuming fragments of videos under theoretical codes are not explicated, so the process of data *interpretation* (see Willig, Chapter 10, this volume) remains implicit. Instead, the code may be habitualized and validated by tests on 'inter-coder reliability'; in recent years it has even been automatized by means of computer-supported analyses (Silver and Patashnick, 2011). Already by 2002 more than 40 computer programs (such as MotionPro or SimiMotion) for standardized analysis were available – most of them based on predefined categories (cf. Koch and Zumbach, 2002). Standardized methods are not restricted to experimental and quantitative studies of audiovisual conduct, as for example in social or educational psychology or in research on small-group interaction. They can be found also in approaches that claim to proceed according to a qualitative methodology, as in some of the works cited above.

In sharp contrast, *interpretive* video analysis follows a different methodological premise: it assumes that the actions recorded are guided by meanings that must be understood by the actors themselves. It is only on the basis of the meanings of actions to the actors involved, that is, 'first order constructs', that researchers pursue their questions and create their 'second order constructs' (Schutz, 1962; also see Eberle, Chapter 13, and Bohnsack, Chapter 15, this volume). The methodology suggested here accounts for both the process of understanding and the ways in which researchers arrive at their constructs.

Consequently, the methodology referred to here as 'video analysis' is not a general, but a rather specific method, not suited for every type of video recording. Video technology can surely be used for taping every audiovisual phenomenon. Our particular approach to video analysis, however, refers primarily to video recordings of *social interactions*. Social interaction involves any action performed by someone who is motivated by, oriented to and coordinated with others, irrespective of whether these 'others' are other participants, animals, artefacts, or whatever. This notion of 'social interaction', thus circumscribes a broad range of different forms of interaction, of which human interaction with humans is only one – although perhaps the most important – type. It also includes human interaction with machines, animals and objects, technically mediated interactions, interaction with oneself and even interactions with invisible actors, for example spirits or gods or other 'supernatural' entities, insofar as they are addressed by human actors and if they become observable in ritual interaction.

SORTS OF VIDEO DATA AND TYPES OF VIDEO ANALYSIS

Given the enormous variety of videos, the way in which they are analysed does not depend exclusively on the methodology applied to the footage. It is determined even more by the conditions of production – the practices by which videos are being recorded, made accessible and handled by the researchers. We should stress that, in any case, video results from certain activities and interventions carried out by the researchers, so the recordings cannot be considered as mere 'material' in the

sense of a 'natural discovery'. Video recordings have to be considered as 'data', because the researchers actively construct them. More precisely, it should be recognized that different kinds of research activities lead to different types of data, to which we refer as 'data sorts'. With regard to video, data sorts can be distinguished along the following lines (Knoblauch et al., 2006a: 13ff.):

(1) 'Native' video data: There is one form of video analysis that draws on videos which have been recorded – and produced in a more or less professional way – by actors other than researchers, for example private tapes made available to the researchers, video clips uploaded on YouTube or 'video diaries' triggered by the researchers (Pink, 2007). A huge variety of this kind of 'native' video exists. From the very beginning of popular video technology and the invention of the camcorder, there have been two major ways of dealing with this type of material for research purposes. Both are related to the two different functions that camcorders combine: the apparatus provides (a) an audiovisual *recording* technology for events taking place in the common environment of actors; and it also offers a device for (b) *viewing* these recordings. Accordingly, some researchers use video produced by actors, in some cases by invitation to produce video for research purposes and in other cases drawn from a more or less publicly available collection from DVDs, television or the Internet. A number of approaches refer to this kind of 'media data' as video analysis (Raab, 2008; Bohnsack, 2009; Reichertz and Englert, 2010).

(2) Video data induced by researchers: By contrast, there are videos which are recorded by the scientists themselves during the research process. Here, we are concerned with these latter sorts of data. Among the category of researcher-induced video data, there are two main types: 'experimental' and 'natural' video documents. (a) On the one hand, videos record *situations created by researchers*. For example, video data produced in an experiment in which standardized interviews were documented by four cameras installed in a linguistic laboratory setting (Luckmann, 2006). (b) On the other hand and opposed to settings created by the researchers, video analysis of the kind we will concentrate on focuses on settings as they are created by the actors under study. These are referred to as *natural settings* in the sense of 'naturally occurring' social situations, whose existence does not depend on a purposeful research design. We may add that this does not exclude the study of experiments, if experiments themselves are the subject matter (and not the method), as in some recent studies conducted in the field of social science and technology studies. The notion of 'natural setting' does not imply naive naturalism. It gives credit to the researchers' attempt to record situations, which are neither triggered nor created by them but by the subjects under study. This approach is guided by a methodological principle that takes us as near as possible to the situations of social interactions as the very subject matter of social sciences. The analysis of video recorded by the researchers themselves, in the field, is referred to here as 'videography': that is, when video is used as an instrument for collecting and analysing social interaction in natural settings.

In general terms, *reactivity* is a serious methodological problem. It is a particular challenge for any social research interested in the natural situation. While some situations of interactions are hardly affected by recordings, in others the camera may, to a greater or lesser extent, modify the situation under scrutiny. Consequently, the interfering effects of researchers and their technology in natural situations are, indeed, serious methodological issues for video analytical studies (Lomax and Casey, 1998; cf. Laurier and Philo, 2006). More precisely, audiovisual recording and analysis of 'natural' social interactions require the researchers to go 'where the action' is. Researchers conducting this type of video analysis regularly enter particular fields in ways that resemble ethnography (see Gubrium and Holstein, Chapter 3, this volume). Therefore, interpretive video analysis of the natural situation is embedded in a specific variant of field research called 'focused ethnography' (Knoblauch, 2005). Therefore,

we will refine our notion of video analysis by referring to it more specifically as *videography*, in order to stress the relevance of its ethnographic contextualization. This denomination prevents confusion with quantitative, standardized and experimental forms of video analysis.

Recording 'natural' data, however, does not imply that the video records of social interactions are simply 'registrating conservations', as Bergmann (1985) suggests with respect to audio recordings. Rather than being mere material outcomes, these video recordings as data are co-produced by the researchers as human actors. The product, however, depends greatly on the employed technology's specific qualities and thus entails 'technological co-constructive elements'. The camera contributes to data construction by transforming a certain 'picture detail' of auditory and visual processes into a two-dimensional recording with stereo sound. Recently, 3D video and surround sound have become technically available and might bring some additional advantages in future video recording technologies.

The machine, although providing a technological framework, does not operate on its own. Given the virtues of video recording technology, to which we will turn below, researchers intentionally select a certain field, a focus within the field and a certain kind of camera action. There are many things researchers have to consider in producing recordings, from gaining access to choosing the right camera position and angle. Typically, camera action focuses on the participants in social interactions, including everybody visibly and audibly 'aware' of and attentive to an ongoing interaction. In videography, the camera may be following the subjective eye of the researcher (Mohn, 2006); it may try to track the course of an ongoing action or centre on the dominant actors (Schubert, 2006); or, in cases of spatially stable settings, it takes the role of a fixed observer seemingly only 'registering' the course of the social interaction. Like multi-sited ethnography (Marcus, 1995), videography can also record interaction across different spaces, for example the coordination of action between an airport tower with other activities going on in ground operations elsewhere in the airport, as described in the 'workplace project' (Goodwin and Goodwin, 1996). Videography is characterized by the fact that the researchers themselves are recording the video 'in the field' and then using these audiovisual tapes for their analyses. Thereby, researchers can account, explicitly and methodically, for the ways and processes of data production and its circumstances.

HISTORY OF INTERPRETIVE VIDEO ANALYSIS OF SOCIAL INTERACTION

The analysis of social interaction with audiovisual data in natural settings has a substantial tradition. Although much of the history of 'visual sociology' focuses on photography, film was used very early on for the analysis of human conduct. Famous examples are A.C. Haddon, Baldwin Spencer or Robert Flaherty, who since the turn of the twentieth century used film to analyse human conduct. Obviously, footage is highly useful, because it opened up new possibilities for analysing human conduct. Anthropology produced an unprecedented collection of film data, although it was mainly employed to document particular social worlds, rather than analyse them. In the 1930s, Arnold Gesell (1935) published a book on 'cinema analysis' as a 'method for behaviour study' in which he used frame-by-frame analysis. Some years later, Gregory Bateson and Margaret Mead (1942) conducted their famous visual analysis of Balinese dance. Later Bateson and the so-called 'Palo Alto group' used film to study interaction between family members. The team also initiated the famous project on the 'History of the interview', in which the various modes of interaction were captured for the very first time (Bateson, 1958). Footage was used to focus on non-verbal behaviour (Ekman and Friesen, 1969) resulting in a series of studies conducted by films that tried to capture behaviour in a more encompassing and meaningful way. Birdwhistell (1952) analysed the interplay between non-verbal and verbal behaviour in minute detail, coining the notion of 'kinesics'. Scheflen (1965) analysed the role

of posture for the structuring of psychotherapeutic encounters.

While these analyses were performed on the basis of film, the situation changed substantially with the introduction, miniaturization and technical sophistication of video recording technology. As early as the late 1970s, Luckmann and Gross (1977) started a project which used video to develop a multimodal annotation system for interactions modelled on a musical score. Since the 1970s, video analysis based on the sociological approaches of ethnomethodology (see Eberle, Chapter 13, this volume) and conversation analysis (see Toerien, Chapter 22, this volume) became more common. As conversation analysis had been supported by the invention of the portable audio recorder, the introduction of the camcorder helped to extend that. Thus, Goodwin (1981) analysed verbal interaction to show how visual aspects, particularly gaze, help to bestow order. Erickson and Shultz (1982) employed video for the studies of four school counsellors in their interview interaction with pupils. Heath has undertaken video studies since the 1970s, targeting complex social situations, namely medical encounters (Heath, 1986).

Methodological reflection began in the 1980s (Erickson, 1982; Heath, 1997; Lomax and Casey, 1998) and is now documented in the first edited volumes (Knoblauch et al., 2006b; Kissmann, 2009) and the first introductory book in English (Heath et al., 2010), along with collections for particular fields of application like the learning sciences (Goldman et al., 2007).

ANALYSING AUDIOVISUAL DATA OF SOCIAL INTERACTION

As a methodological approach in qualitative research, videography is especially useful for studying communication and interaction in its contexts. Video provides a distinctive form of data with particular qualities for research in the social sciences. No other recording technology is able to allow for such a richness of detail on aspects and 'modalities' of communication which become available for inspection retrospectively. In addition to language and speech, gesture and facial expression as well as body movements, the spatial relation of bodies and objects, and their movements, are accessible for scrutiny. There are various ways of approaching these aspects. Whereas within linguistics and gesture studies researchers tend to divide these aspects into different modalities, videographers typically go for a more holistic approach and use video recordings as a device to study social interaction (Mondada, 2007) and to conceive ongoing interactive coordination of communicative modalities and objects in space and time as 'orchestration' (Schnettler, 2006). The reconstruction of its core elements and their particular interplay is one of the most important aims of interpretive video analysis.

Compared with other forms of participatory observation, video recordings are characterized by two features already highlighted by Grimshaw: 'The two principal advantages of SIR [Sound-Image Data Records] are Density and Permanence. Other records may have one or the other of these attributes; no other has both' (1982: 122). Density refers to the complex quality of video technology data to register observations in a social situation. Density means that minute aspects (the perceptual features of certain things, the exact course of certain events), which might have passed unnoticed by the actors or the observer in the situation, become accessible in the recorded data. Density, of course, only holds for those audiovisual aspects focused on in the situation. They are represented in a perspective co-constructed by the camera. Similar to photography and despite their constructed character, audiovisual representations carry a mimetic character, which can be understood as 'representing' aspects of a situation. Density can be exploited by freezing images and by enlarging or highlighting certain parts of single audiovisual frames or sequences – a feature that has been substantially simplified with the digitalization of video.

Concerning its permanence, a recording 'turns motion into data'. Video is, like film, a

temporal medium – a medium that records in stretches of time. As a result, video recordings preserve the structural temporal ordering of the ongoing activity. Thus, the processual character of social interactions becomes accessible for scrutiny. This is the most important advantage of video compared with photography. Permanence is accounted for by the very possibility of replaying the video as often as desired. In fact, the advantage of video recordings over film is the ease with which video can be repeated and thence evidence can be reproduced with the data. Expressed in standardized methodological diction, this feature would be referred to as 'validity'. Without adopting this terminology, it is obvious that reproducibility is one of these data's major benefits for social research.

Moreover, the temporality of audiovisual data is exploited by the use of slow or fast motion, that is the technical manipulation of the temporality of what has been recorded. Thus, in their famous studies on emotions, Ekman and Friesen (1969) used slow motion in order to identify different facial expression. Similarly, in another early video study of social interaction, Goodwin (1986) applied slow motion to analyse the coordination of gaze and speech. Slow motion and replay are also employed for audio data, particularly in the production of transcripts. In this regard, video can be called a *social microscope* able to examine the minutiae of ongoing social interaction and the ways in which they contribute to the social construction of reality.

In addition to the temporal order and the form of movement, video also conserves those features of situational arrangements that remain permanent throughout the course of interaction. Static artefacts, equipment, accessories, spatial organization, colour, texture and the atmosphere of the immediate environment in which the interaction is taking place are depicted, at least partly conserved in two-dimensional representations and thus can later be reconstructed from the video, including its symbolic meaning.

However, modalities such as smell, temperature and the 'emotional atmosphere' cannot be captured with video, although they may be decisive for understanding the situation under scrutiny. One should be aware that video is, on the one hand, reductive with respect to the numerous aspects, perspectives and modalities of social situations, and, on the other hand, constructive in that it provides a specific frame, perspective and audiovisual format.

Both essential qualities of video as data sorts – its density and its temporality in permanence – are accounted for in video analysis methodology. Below, we will turn to its temporal feature that is addressed by the notion of *sequentiality*. Put succinctly, sequentiality is the major resource for interpreting social interaction with respect to its temporality as represented on the audiovisual records. Therefore, sequential analysis is the main methodological procedure applied to videos of social interaction.

SEQUENTIAL ANALYSIS

Sequential analysis (see Wernet, Chapter 16, and Toerien, Chapter 22, this volume) is directly linked to the technical potential of video technology and the practices related to it. The fact that recordings of social interactions can be repeated and recurrently observed (in stills, slow or fast motion) parallels an essential feature of action and interaction as stressed by some major theories of social action. Action is, as Schutz (1962) and Mead (1938) pointed out, essentially a temporal structure – and interaction depends basically on the coordination of actions. The video data's temporal structure helps to access this temporality. Irrespective of whatever the camera may construct, there are few doubts that it helps to preserve the temporal order of the recorded actions and interactions, that is its sequentiality. While the tempo of the recording may be changing, the sequence of the course of action is maintained. It is this temporal order of the course of action we refer to as 'sequentiality'. This notion of sequentiality, however, is not restricted to the analysis of audiovisual data. It has already been suggested in the analysis of audio data from 'natural' conversations, particularly by conversation analysis (Sacks, 1972; Sacks et al., 1974; Have,

1 S: d:ie zw:osechsndsiebzich*
*number tw:oseventysix**
2 (0.6)

3 EIN überraschungsposten.
a surprise item
4 (.)

5 reisetasche mit inhalt;
travel bag with ((unknown)) content
6 (0.9)

7 fünf sind geboten;
five are offered;

8 zehn sin´ geboten
ten are offered

9 fünfzehn sin´ geboten
fifteen are offered

Figure 30.1 Audiovisual moves in auctioneer-audience interaction

1999; also see Toerien, Chapter 22, this volume). Sequentiality may be best understood by a classical empirical example in which Schegloff (1968) studied openings of telephone calls to a 'disaster centre'. After his first examination of the acoustic data, Schegloff had assumed that there must be a 'distribution rule of first utterances', that is the answerer speaks first. Then, however, he was confronted with the following deviant case to this rule:

#9 (Police makes call)

Receiver is lifted, and there is a one second pause

Police: Hello

Other: American Red Cross

Police: Hello, this is Police Headquarters … er, Officer Stratton

This example seems to disconfirm Schegloff's rule, because of the one-second pause after the call has been dispatched. The one called does not talk first. Instead, the caller starts with 'hello'. However, the fact that the caller is talking first is not really a violation of that rule. Rather, the pause left by the person called is taken as a kind of answer to which the 'hello' in the second turn replies. And this 'hello' not only is a greeting, but also accounts for the lack of response. To be more correct, it can be seen as motivated by the phone ringing, which 'acts' like a summons and turns the 'hello' as an answer into a second turn. The general insight from this example is that actions are rendered meaningful in the context of other actions, and that this context is constituted by the sequence of this action. Sequentiality is based on the temporality of action and interaction. Conversely it is this temporal order of action that constitutes a decisive resource by which actions are rendered meaningful. Thus, sequentiality is a crucial device for sense-making in a double sense: first, it allows the actors themselves to show their own understanding of the ongoing course of interaction; and, second, it also enables observers to make inferences as to what exactly these actors are doing.

Sequentiality is linked to a further methodological principle derived from ethnomethodology: *reflexivity*. Reflexivity (see May and Perry, Chapter 8, this volume) refers to the assumption that actors not only act, but (in the way they are acting and coordinating with others temporally) 'indicate', 'frame' or 'contextualize' what they do while they are acting. When asking a question, for example, actors not only perform an action – by the way they act and its temporal order – but also show if and how the given answer could be read as an answer to the question.

The combination of sequentiality and reflexivity facilitates the validation of interpretations. Following Schegloff (1992), it is the sequential embedding in prior and later turns that can be considered as a decisive reason for the relevance of the next turn. Because of its reflexivity, each next turn entails the actor's interpretation of prior turns in the light of the subsequent one. Sequential analysis always follows a prospective order, so that turns are only interpreted before focusing on the next turn. Based on this 'rule of prospective analysis', the interpretation of a negation as a contradiction, for example, can be validated or falsified in the next, third move – if it does not contain an argumentative extension or the continuation of a contradiction (Knoblauch, 1991).

Sequential analysis has proven its methodological power in the analysis of audio-recorded conversation. If we raise the question of how it applies to other data different to verbal interaction, Schegloff's example cited above provides a valuable hint, for one 'turn' in the sequence he analysed is not actually constituted by a 'speech act'. It is not even direct human action but rather a technologically mediated action – the phone ringing. Thus, the 'unit' to be considered can be a non-linguistic event if it

triggers another action, such as a bodily move or a sound. That telephone rings fulfil this function of a 'turn' is not surprising since acoustically coordinated action depends on the temporal ordering of sound. How do we address visual turns or 'moves'?[1] In order to illustrate how moves can be analysed sequentially, it may be useful to look at an example from our own research.[2] The video fragment in Figure 30.1 is taken from an auction at a point where the auctioneer is offering a new item to the audience. Because he does not say what it contains, he describes it as a 'surprise'. He starts by identifying its number in the catalogue.

Steven, the auctioneer, starts (lines 1–2) with a number that, for the moment, seems to be opaque, and also his description of a 'surprise' object (line 3) remains unintelligible if we look at the text only. By turning our attention to his visual conduct, we can see that he is looking at the desk (line 2). Our ethnographic knowledge of the situation tells us that there is one common document available in the auction – the catalogue – including all objects on offer. Therefore, actors and observers may infer that he is reading the catalogue. In fact, we can identify a number of actors in the audience looking at their copy of the document resting on their knees. In this case, the visual conduct not only accompanies turn-taking (line 1), but rather allows us to specify what the speaker refers to while speaking – a specification that is made visible by his glance and the pause (line 2). The verbal interaction consists of a dual unit separated by a short pause (lines 3–5). The first part is pronounced upwards, announcing the 'surprise', whereas the second part prosodically falls down so as to finish the turn and open the floor for the next turn. This is called a 'transition relevance place' (Sacks et al., 1974). As opposed to the analysis of audiotapes only, we need not depend only on prosodical knowledge of how the speaker raises his voice, for the interpretation is supported sequentially: the speaker (while pronouncing 'a surprise item') raises his head and looks at the audience. What appears as a pause in the verbal transcript is a move if we look at the video: immediately after the transition point a number of people in the audience raise their hands. As with the telephone ringing, the raising of the head can be understood as the speaker opening the floor for the audience. The 'reaction' of the audience, on the other hand, can be considered as a reflexive interpretation of the action by the speaker.

As indicated above, there is a way of validating this interpretation. In the next move, the speaker points with his arm towards certain actors in the audience who are raising their hands. In this move he 'interprets' their action by identifying it with a number: 'Five are offered' is the response that takes raising the hand as the performance of a bid, literally meaning 'I want to buy this item and I offer 5 euros'. We do not want to delve into more intricate questions, such as how prices are set and negotiated in such settings (Heath and Luff, 2007). Rather, we should note that the turn following the speaker's initiation is purely a visual turn or 'move' (looking up, raising the hand), and that it is produced as such by the next move of the speaker identifying it as a bid verbally and hinting in a certain direction.

The visuality of this move is underlined if we acknowledge that none of these sequences could have been detected from an analysis of the verbal interaction. Only careful study of the video allows the researcher to identify the sequential unfolding of the interaction and the moves that constitute it. One may argue that understanding audiovisually recorded sequences could be accomplished without the transcript, but experience proves that the written transcript is a very helpful tool for identifying the sequence of audiovisual action. If there are no verbal utterances, other temporal actions – such as gazing – relevant for interpretation may need to be transcribed into more detail. As Goodwin puts it:

> Rather than wandering onto field sites as disinterested observers, attempting the impossible task of trying to catalogue everything in the setting, we can use the visible orientation of the participants as a spotlight to show us just those features of context that we have to come to terms with if we are to adequately describe the organization of their action. (2000a: 1508f.)

It will be necessary to answer detailed questions like: Do actors look at the screen before they push a button? Does a phone ring before person A walks away? Does person B point at the slide after she said X or when she says Y?

THE DENSE VISUAL CONTEXT, ETHNOGRAPHIC KNOWLEDGE AND SAMPLING STRATEGIES

The outstanding quality of video data is their capacity to record ongoing, sequential processes. However, video data are 'dense' in a further sense. They also capture those aspects of the situation that remain unchanged over time. Thus, video recordings also represent *permanent* visual elements, including material objects and artefacts, bodily configurations and built spaces, furniture, walls, buildings, instruments, clothes, spectacles or hairstyle. These elements constitute the aforementioned 'density' of audiovisual records. How do we deal with these non-sequential aspects in video analysis?

There are different systematic approaches to address these enduring situational elements. One way has been suggested by Goodwin (2000b). He assumes that *semiotics* may be able to grasp these visual features. The elements are, then, taken as representing visual signs. On the basis of semiotics it is assumed that these signs form part of more encompassing sign systems from which the meaning of these signs can be derived (Kress, 2010). Thus, talk appears to be embedded in multiple sign systems, such as graphic codes, gestures and other features of the environment.

Another approach to the interpretation of these visually permanent elements is offered by *hermeneutics* (see Wernet, Chapter 16, this volume). Thus Soeffner (1996) suggests analysing videos decomposed in stills. On the basis of these 'frozen' visual representations, a group of culturally competent hermeneuticians produce various readings that are tested against the background of selected next stills. Step by step, certain readings of the situation represented visually or audiovisually are excluded so that the remaining reading is considered as validated.

While hermeneutics draws on general cultural knowledge, our way of handling the density of audiovisual data and permanent elements is *ethnography* (see Gubrium and Holstein, Chapter 3, this volume). As stated above, the collection of video data demands a certain degree of ethnographic fieldwork. On the background of general cultural knowledge which, if not present, needs to be acquired by conventional long-term ethnography, the videographer has to become familiar with the situation to such a degree as to be able to determine a relevant focus for recording the video. In addition, videographers are required to gain knowledge about the contextual elements that are represented on the video or even escape the focus of the video camera, yet are indispensable to understand what is going on. Thus, knowledge of the workings of instruments used, of the categories of actors, of the structure of space within the camera's focus or outside it, as well as of the events leading to the recording, is required in order to be able to later interpret and analyse audiovisual recordings. In some cases, this knowledge can be retrieved before or while recording; it can also be gained by subsequent processes, such as video elicitation, auto-confrontation, autoethnography (by the videographer) or video-based interviewing of the participants. In videography the analysis of permanent elements of the audiovisual recordings are not to be understood as visual analysis in the proper sense but, rather, as forms of protocols of the social interaction recorded and analysed. Depending on the kind of social interaction, understanding can draw on general everyday knowledge, yet regularly it demands more specific knowledge about the type of situation, the kind of actors and the context.

On these grounds, ethnographic data collection and sequential analysis are tightly intertwined in a way resembling the pattern described by Silverman (2007) as 'mapping the woods' and 'chopping up the trees'. While

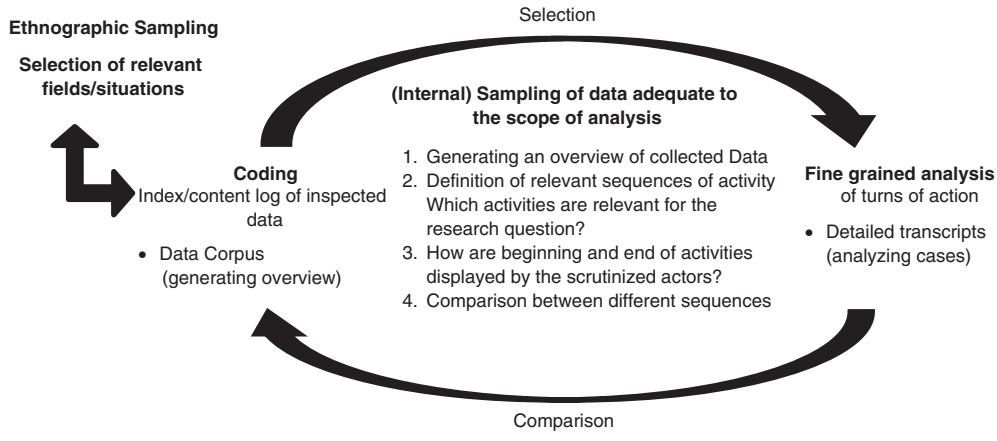

Figure 30.2 Process of analysis (from Knoblauch and Tuma, 2011)

'chopping up the trees' is represented by the fine-grained sequential analysis, 'mapping the woods' consists of the ethnographic fieldwork. This 'ethnographic sampling strategy' (see Rapley, Chapter 4, this volume) includes the selection of situations to be recorded as well as the selection of what is being recorded within these situations. Relevant situations are chosen due to their relevance in the field and to the theoretical research question and, of course, the selection of the recorded situation is based on characteristics of its typicality and relevance, and contrasted or compared with other situations. This selection already entails important assumptions that have consequences for the theoretical conclusions. Therefore, in order to determine a focus, selection of the empirical field is as important as the theoretical context.

Ethnographic sampling starts with questions of access to social situations, including legal and moral issues (Heath et al., 2010: 14ff.). As soon as access to a certain setting and situation is achieved, one has to decide on what exactly to record and potentially make subject to the time-consuming fine-grained analysis. Selection criteria, again, depend on the scientific question and on prior ethnographic observations in the field. For example, in studying work in an operating theatre, one may want to focus on the ways in which actors handle instruments with their hands and bodies, or one may want to focus on the use of space in the theatre. Then, work in similar theatres or in different settings may be compared with others that are selected by the ethnographic strategy. As mentioned above, seemingly simply technical selections such as the position of the camera or the microphones are as relevant to this selection as are theoretical considerations of what is relevant in the field and to the researcher. As Figure 30.2 shows, ethnographic sampling, and the sampling of video data for analysis, are iterative processes.

In a first step, the data recorded will be coded in a (digital) content logbook. A content log contains the temporal sequence of events, a rough transcription of activities, gestures and talk, reflections and coding of sequences according to the research topic. According to grounded theory (Glaser and Strauss, 1968), codes are developed within the course of the study (see Thornberg and Charmaz, Chapter 11, this volume), and 'emerge' from the material. As part of the internal sampling, coding consists of identifying fragments that can be subjected to a fine-grained sequential analysis. It is certainly useful to make exact transcripts of these fragments, at least with respect to the verbal modalities. We recommend that researchers should do the transcription on their own in order to attain familiarity with the data. There are a large number of more or less sophisticated transcription systems available,

some of which are useful for transcribing video data (Heath et al., 2010: 70ff). The GAT-System (Selting et al., 2009) has proven to be a valuable reference (see Kowal and O'Connell, Chapter 5, this volume).

As Figure 30.2 illustrates, data collection, selection of fragments and sequential analysis are not consecutive phases of research, but follow an iterative research logic. Hence, the sample of data may be extended on the grounds of fine-grained analysis up to the point of saturation: that is, when no further insights are provided by new data.

Videography includes many different activities in the process ranging from fieldwork to fine-grained analysis of single utterances; they are organized around a research question sharpened step by step over the research process. However, we want to emphasize another aspect: in particular, the first approaches to fine-grained analysis, the definition of sequences and the 'selection of the scope' of the particular study should be done in the frame of group video *data sessions* (Heath et al., 2010: 156). The data session within a group is not just effective protection against misleading interpretations, but rather helps to 'break' with 'taken-for-granted' everyday interpretations of what is going on. Besides the fieldworkers, the group should also include members not familiar with the recorded situation. During the repeated step-by-step inspection of the recordings, 'ethnographic knowledge' will be explicated. This is a prerequisite for the interpretation of data, namely a basic understanding of what is going on. Sequential analysis done on this background is, then, made plausible by being based not on general assumptions, but on what can be shown in the video data.

NEW TENDENCIES AND THE LIMITS OF VIDEOGRAPHY

The dynamics of the field of interpretive video analysis prevent us from drawing premature conclusions. Therefore we close this chapter by discussing some pending issues and challenges. This kind of analysis, combining detailed observations with interpretation, is evidently not an automatic process. It rather includes specific activities of the researchers and the tools they use. Likewise, data sessions are not simple 'step-by-step proceedings' producing miraculous outcomes. They are a specific social form of interaction in and by which interpretations are elaborated. There are some approaches to reflect on how knowledge is generated in data sessions (Hindmarsh and Tutt, 2012; Tuma, 2012), which, as Knoblauch (2004) suggests, should be taken into consideration for the methodology of video analysis. Moreover, further technological innovations may prompt developments that focus more on the visual qualities of video data. With the ability to manipulate the visual, by drawing on the screen and easily comparing different instances visually, the ratio between sequential analysis and the analysis of other aspects of the data could change.

Videography is an approach that has shown its practical applicability in a number of fields, especially where focused interaction is occurring, as in educational settings, in workplaces, or even in religious rituals. But there are limits to its applicability due to the developments of mediatization that demand adaption of additional concepts: the character of ethnographic research changes if new media come into focus, because the field of research changes its shape. The specific possibilities offered by these new media are exploited both by researchers and by actors in a variety of fields. People make video recordings in nearly all spheres of social life; they produce all kinds of documentation and visual artefacts using the camera. Therefore, researchers are increasingly confronted with recordings of social interactions produced by actors on the scene that often are readily available. These video recordings can become part of a video-webnography or virtual ethnography (Domínguez et al., 2007; also see Kozinets et al., Chapter 18, this volume).

Digitalization also affects the analysis of video, for developments in analysis software

may simplify transcribing, tagging and managing video data, without, however, replacing the necessity to interpret the data thoroughly. Newly developed visual technologies, finally, allow for new forms of post-processing data and representing final results of the analysis (Tuma, 2012) of social interaction. Established forms like printing selected transcripts including stills or frames taken from video recordings in social science articles do not exhaust the prospects of visual analysis. Experts from applied fields of 'vernacular' video analysis, for example in sports, already combine visual and spoken annotations to render their analysis intelligible to their audience. Interpretive video analysis in the social sciences might profit from these and other forms invented and conventionalized outside of social science, which, therefore, merit further study. Addressing these kinds of mediated video data may enhance the hermeneutic and semiotic aspects in video analysis and can become an integrated part of research processes studying mediated forms of audiovisual discourse (cf. Reichertz and Englert, 2010). Videography differs from the latter by the limits of both its data and its subject matter: it is the video analysis of social interaction in natural social settings.

NOTES

1. While the 'turn' in conversation analysis refers to stretches of verbal action, we use the term 'move' in order to indicate single identifiable 'units' of actions performed in various embodied communicative modalities, including verbal interaction. In this sense, the term differs slightly from its more 'strategic' meaning used by Goffman (1969).
2. We would like to thank Felix Degenhardt for his contribution of data. The video fragment is available at: http://www.as.tu-berlin.de/v-menue/videolabor/datenbeispiele/ (accessed 14 May 2013).

FURTHER READING

Goodwin, Charles (1994) 'Professional vision', *American Anthropologist*, 96 (3): 606–33.

Heath, Cristian, Hindmarsh, Jon and Luff, Paul (2010) *Video in Qualitative Research*. London: Sage.

Knoblauch, Hubert, Schnettler, Bernt, Soeffner, Hans-Georg and Raab, Jürgen (eds) (2006) *Video Analysis – Methodology and Methods. Qualitative Audiovisual Data Analysis in Sociology*. Frankfurt am Main: Lang.

REFERENCES

Bateson, Gregory (1958) 'Language and psychotherapy: Frieda Fromm-Reichmann's last project', *Psychiatry*, 21: 96–100.

Bateson, Gregory and Mead, Margaret (1942) *Balinese Character: A Photographic Analysis*. New York: New York Academy of Sciences.

Bergmann, Jörg (1985) 'Flüchtigkeit und methodische Fixierung sozialer Wirklichkeit', in Wolfgang Bonß and Heinz Hartmann (eds), *Entzauberte Wissenschaft (Soziale Welt, Sonderband 3).* Göttingen: Schwartz. pp. 299–320.

Birdwhistell, Ray L. (1952) *Introduction to Kinesics: An Annotation System for the Analysis of Body Motion and Gesture*. Louisville, KY: University of Louisville.

Bohnsack, Ralf (2009) *Qualitative Bild- und Videointerpretation. Die dokumentarische Methode*. Stuttgart: UTB.

Domínguez, Daniel, Beaulieu, Anne, Estalella, Adolfo, Gómez, Edgar, Schnettler, Bernt and Read, Rosie (2007) 'Virtual ethnography', *Forum Qualitative Sozialforschung/Forum: Qualitative Social Research*, 8 (3).

Ekman, Paul and Friesen, Wallace (1969) 'A tool for the analysis of motion picture film or videotapes', *American Psychologist*, 24 (3): 240–3.

Erickson, Frederick (1982) 'Audiovisual recordings as primary data source', *Sociological Methods and Research*, 11 (2): 213–32.

Erickson, Frederick and Schultz, Jeffrey (1982) 'The counsellor as gatekeeper; Social interaction in interviews', in E. Hammel (ed.), *Language, Thought and Culture: Advances in the Study of Cognition*. New York: Academic Press. pp. 237–60.

Gesell, Arnold (1935) 'Cinemanalysis: A method of behavior study', *Journal of Genetic Psychology*, 47 (1): 3–16.

Glaser, Barney G. and Strauss, Anselm L. (1968) *The Discovery of Grounded Theory: Strategies for Qualitative Research*. London: Weidenfeld & Nicolson.

Goffman, Erving (1969) *Strategic Interaction*. Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press.

Goldman, Ricki, Pea, Roy, Barron, Brigid and Denny, Sharon J. (2007) *Video Research in the Learning Sciences*. Mahwah, NJ: Lawrence Erlbaum.

Goodwin, Charles (1981) *Conversational Organization: Interaction Between Speakers and Hearers*. New York: Academic Press.

Goodwin, Charles (1986) 'Gestures as a resource for the organization of mutual orientation', *Semiotica*, 62 (1/2): 29–49.

Goodwin, Charles (2000a) 'Action and embodiment within situated human interaction', *Journal of Pragmatics*, 32: 1489–1522.

Goodwin, Charles (2000b) 'Practices of seeing: Visual analysis: An ethnomethodological approach', in Theo van Leeuwen and Carey Jewitt (eds), *Handbook of Visual Analysis.* London: Sage. pp. 157–82.

Goodwin, Charles and Goodwin, Marjarie Harness (1996) 'Seeing as situated activity: Formulating planes', in Yrjö Engeström and David Middleton (eds), *Cognition and Communication at Work.* Cambridge: Cambridge University Press. pp. 61–95.

Greenberg, Joshua M. (2008) *From Betamax to Blockbuster: Video Stores and the Invention of Movies on Video. Cambridge*, MA: MIT Press.

Grimshaw, Allen D. (1982) 'Sound-image data records for research on social interaction: Some questions answered', *Sociological Methods and Research*, 11 (2): 121–44.

Have, Paul ten (1999) *Doing Conversation Analysis: A Practical Guide*. London: Sage.

Heath, Christian (1986) *Body Movement and Speech in Medical Interaction*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

Heath, Christian (1997) 'The analysis of activities in face to face interaction using video', in David Silverman (ed.), *Qualitative Research: Theory, Method, and Practice.* London: Sage. pp. 183–200.

Heath, Christian (2012) *The Dynamics of Auction*. Cambridge, MA: Cambridge University Press.

Heath, Christian and Luff, Paul (2007) 'Ordering competition: The international accomplishment of the sale of art and antiques at auction', *British Journal of Sociology*, 58 (1): 63–85.

Heath, Christian, Hindmarsh, Jon and Luff, Paul (2010) *Video in Qualitative Research*. London: Sage.

Hindmarsh, Jon and Tutt, Dylan (2012) 'Video in analytic practice', in Sarah Pink (ed.), *Advances in Visual Methodology.* Newbury Park, CA: Sage. pp. 57–73.

Kissmann, Ulrike Tikvah (ed.) (2009) *Video Interaction Analysis: Methods and Methodology*. Frankfurt am Main: Lang.

Knoblauch, Hubert (1991) 'Kommunikation im Kontext. John J. Gumperz und die interaktionale Soziolinguistik', *Zeitschrift für Soziologie*, 20 (6): 446–62.

Knoblauch, Hubert (2004) 'The future prospects of qualitative research', in Uwe Flick et al. (eds), *A Companion to Qualitative Research.* London: Sage. pp. 354–8.

Knoblauch, Hubert (2005) 'Focused ethnography', *Forum Qualitative Sozialforschung/Forum: Qualitative Social Research*, 6 (3): Art. 44. Available at: http://nbn-resolving.de/urn:nbn:de:0114-fqs0503440 (accessed 14 May 2013).

Knoblauch, Hubert and Tuma, René (2011) 'Videography: An interpretative approach to video-recorded micro-social interaction', in Eric Margolis and Luc Pauwels (eds), *The SAGE Handbook of Visual Research Methods.* Los Angeles: Sage. pp. 414–30.

Knoblauch, Hubert, Schnettler, Bernt and Raab, Jürgen (2006a) 'Video-analysis: Methodological aspects of interpretive audiovisual analysis in social research', in Hubert Knoblauch et al. (eds), *Video Analysis: Methodology and Methods.* Frankfurt am Main: Lang. pp. 9–26.

Knoblauch, Hubert, Schnettler, Bernt, Soeffner, Hans-Georg and Raab, Jürgen (eds) (2006b) *Video Analysis: Methodology and Methods. Qualitative Audiovisual Data Analysis in Sociology*. Frankfurt am Main: Lang.

Koch, Sabine C. and Zumbach, Jörg (2002) 'The use of video analysis software in behavior observation research: Interaction patterns of task-oriented small groups', *Forum Qualitative Sozialforschung/Forum: Qualitative Social Research*, 3 (2): Art. 18. http://nbn-resolving.de/urn:nbn:de:0114-fqs0202187 (accessed 14 May 2013).

Kress, Gunter (2010) *Multimodality: A Social Semiotics Approach to Contemporary Communication*. New York: Routledge.

Laurier, Eric and Philo, Chris (2006) 'Natural problems of naturalistic video data', in Hubert Knoblauch et al. (eds), *Video Analysis: Methodology and Methods.* Frankfurt am Main: Lang. pp. 183–92.

Lomax, Helen and Casey, Neil (1998) 'Recording social life: Reflexivity and video methodology', *Sociological Research Online*, 3 (2).

Luckmann, Thomas (2006) 'Some remarks on scores in multimodal sequential analysis', in Hubert Knoblauch et al. (eds), *Video Analysis: Methodology and Methods.* Frankfurt am Main: Lang. pp. 29–34.

Luckmann, Thomas and Gross, Peter (1977) 'Analyse unmittelbarer Kommunikation und Interaktion als Zugang zum Problem der Entstehung sozialwissenschaftlicher Daten', in Hans-Ulrich Bielefeld et al. (eds), *Soziolinguistik und Empirie. Beiträge zu Problemen der Corpusgewinnung und -auswertung.* Wiesbaden: Athenaum. pp. 198–207.

Marcus, George E. (1995) 'Ethnography in/of the world system: The emergence of multi-sited ethnography', *Annual Review of Anthropology*, 24: 95–117.

Mead, George Herbert (1938) *The Philosophy of the Act*, ed. Charles W. Morris with John M. Brewster, Albert M. Dunham and David Miller. Chicago: University of Chicago Press.

Mittenecker, Erich (1987) *Video in der Psychologie. Methoden und Anwendungsbeispiele in Forschung und Praxis*. Bern: Huber.

Mohn, Elisabeth (2006) 'Permanent work on gazes', in Hubert Knoblauch et al. (eds), *Video Analysis: Methodology and Methods.* Frankfurt am Main: Lang. pp. 173–81.

Mondada, Lorenza (2007) 'Multimodal resources for turn-taking: Pointing and the emergence of possible next speakers', *Discourse Studies*, 9 (2): 195–226.

Pink, Sarah (2007) *Doing Visual Ethnography: Images, Media and Representation in Research*, 2nd edition. London: Sage.

Raab, Jürgen (2008) *Visuelle Wissenssoziologie. Konzepte und Methoden*. Konstanz: UVK.

Reichertz, Jo and Englert, Carina J. (2010) *Einführung in die qualitative Videoanalyse. Eine hermeneutisch-wissensoziologische Fallanalyse*. Wiesbaden: VS.

Sacks, Harvey (1972) 'An initial investigation of the usability of conversational data for doing sociology', in David Sudnow (ed.), *Studies in Social Interaction.* New York: Free Press. pp. 31–74.

Sacks, Harvey, Schegloff, Emanuel A. and Jefferson, Gail (1974) 'A simplest systematics for the organization of turn-taking for conversation', *Language*, 50 (4): 696–735.

Scheflen, Albert E. (1965) 'The significance of posture in communication systems', *Psychiatry*, 27: 316–31.

Schegloff, Emanuel (1968) 'Sequencing in conversational openings', *American Anthropologist*, 70: 1075–95.

Schegloff, Emanuel (1992) 'On talk and it institutional occasions', in Paul Drew and John Heritage (eds), *Talk at Work: Interaction in Institutional Settings*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press. pp. 101–36.

Schnettler, Bernt (2006) 'Orchestrating bullet lists and commentaries: A video performance analysis of computer supported presentations', in Hubert Knoblauch et al. (eds), *Video Analysis: Methodology and Methods. Qualitative Audiovisual Data Analysis in Sociology.* Frankfurt am Main: Lang. pp. 155–68.

Schubert, Cornelius (2006) 'Video-analysis of practice and the practice of video-analysis', in Hubert Knoblauch et al. (eds), *Video Analysis: Methodology and Methods.* Frankfurt am Main: Lang. pp. 115–26.

Schutz, Alfred (1962) 'Common sense and scientific interpretation of human action', in *Collected Papers I: The Problem of Social Reality*, ed. Maurice Natanson. The Hague: Nijhoff. pp. 3–47.

Seidel, Tina (2005) *How to Run a Video Study: Technical Report of the IPN Video Study*. Münster: Waxmann.

Selting, Margret, Auer, Peter, Barth-Weingarten, Dagmar, Bergmann, Jörg, Bergmann, Pia, Birkner, Karin, Couper-Kuhlen, Elizabeth, Deppermann, Arnulf, Gilles, Peter, Günthner, Susanne, Hartung, Martin, Kern, Friederike, Mertzlufft, Christine, Meyer, Christian, Morek, Miriam, Oberzaucher, Frank, Peters, Jörg, Quasthoff, Uta, Schütte, Wilfried, Stukenbrock, Anja and Uhmann, Susanne (2009) 'Gesprächsanalytisches Transkriptionssystem 2 (GAT 2)', *Gesprächsforschung – Online-Zeitschrift zur verbalen Interaktion*, 10: 223–272 (www.gespraechsforschung-ozs.de).

Silver, Christina and Patashnick, Jennifer (2011) 'Finding fidelity: Advancing analysis using software', *Forum Qualitative Sozialforschung/Forum: Qualitative Social Research*, 12(1), Art. 37. Available at http://nbn-resolving.de/urn:nbn:de:0114-fqs1101372 (Accessed on 23 August, 2013).

Silverman, David (2007) *A Very Short, Fairly Interesting and Reasonably Cheap Book about Qualitative Research*. London: Sage.

Soeffner, Hans-Georg (1996) *The Order of Rituals: The Interpretation of Everyday Life*. New Brunswick, NJ: Transaction.

Tuma, René (2012) 'The (re)construction of human conduct: "Vernacular video analysis"', *Qualitative Sociology Review*, VIII (2), 152–63. Retrieved in August 2013 from http://www.qualitativesociologyreview.org/ENG/archive_eng.php

Zielinski, Siegfried (ed.) (2010 [1986]) *Zur Geschichte des Videorecorders. Neuausgabe des medienwissenschaftlichen Klassikers*. Potsdam:Polzer.

Hubert Knoblauch, René Tuma & Bernt Schnettler (2014): Video Analysis and Videography, in: U. Flick (ed.) *The Sage Handbook of Qualitative Data Analysis*, London: Sage, 435–449

PART III: ANALYTIC STRATEGIES 151

11 Grounded Theory and Theoretical Coding 153
Robert Thornberg and Kathy Charmaz

12 Qualitative Content Analysis 170
Margrit Schreier

13 Phenomenology as a Research Method 184
Thomas S. Eberle

14 Narrative Analysis: The Constructionist Approach 203
Cigdem Esin, Mastoureh Fathi and Corinne Squire

15 Documentary Method 217
Ralf Bohnsack

16 Hermeneutics and Objective Hermeneutics 234
Andreas Wernet

17 Cultural Studies 247
Rainer Winter

18 Netnographic Analysis: Understanding Culture through Social Media Data 262
Robert V. Kozinets, Pierre-Yann Dolbec, and Amanda Earley

19 Using Software in Qualitative Analysis 277
Graham R. Gibbs

PART IV: TYPES OF DATA AND THEIR ANALYSIS 295

20 Analysing Interviews 297
Kathryn Roulston

21 Analysing Focus Groups 313
Rosaline S. Barbour

22 Conversations and Conversation Analysis 327
Merran Toerien

23 Discourses and Discourse Analysis 341
Carla Willig

24 Analysing Observations 354
Amir B. Marvasti

25 Analysing Documents 367
Amanda Coffey

26 Analysing News Media 380
Darrin Hodgetts and Kerry Chamberlain

27 Analysing Images 394
Marcus Banks

28 Analysis of Film 409
Lothar Mikos

29 Analysing Sounds 424
Christoph Maeder

30 Video Analysis and Videography 435
Hubert Knoblauch, René Tuma and Bernt Schnettler

31 Analysing Virtual Data 450
Winfried Marotzki, Jens Holze and Dan Verständig

PART V: USING AND ASSESSING QUALITATIVE DATA ANALYSIS 465

32 Reanalysis of Qualitative Data 467
David Wästerfors, Malin Åkerström and Katarina Jacobsson

33 Qualitative Meta-analysis 481
Ladislav Timulak

34 Quality of Data Analysis 496
Rosaline S. Barbour

35 Ethical Use of Qualitative Data and Findings 510
Donna M. Mertens

36 Analytic Integration in Qualitatively Driven (QUAL) Mixed and Multiple Methods Designs 524
Janice M. Morse and Lory J. Maddox

37 Generalization in and from Qualitative Analysis 540
Joseph A. Maxwell and Margaret Chmiel

38 Theorization from Data 554
Udo Kelle

39 Writing and/as Analysis or Performing the World 569
Norman K. Denzin

40 Implementation: Putting Analyses into Practice 585
Michael Murray

Author Index 600
Subject Index 613